

CLASSIFICATION OF BIPARTITE OBSERVABLES III: SIMPLICITY AND MIXTURES

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ABSTRACT. The Pauli group on countably many qubits, taken modulo phases and with commutation as its relation, is the Fraïssé limit of the finite spaces with an alternating form over the two-element field, and the Rado graph is the Fraïssé limit of the finite graphs. Both are simple unstable structures in the sense of Shelah, and both define bipartite observables. We show that mixing preparations destroys simplicity: for every observable with the independence property, the theory of its mixed preparations and probes has the tree property of the second kind, so that a simple observable has no independence property. The two examples reach this by different routes. For the Pauli group, actual mixtures suffice: averaging over cosets of stabilizer groups, the index of the first parity check to fire in a block is a dividing condition. For the Rado graph, no sequence of actual mixtures ever divides, and the tree appears only among idealized preparations. The difference is that the responses of the Pauli group are the characters of a compact group, while those of the Rado graph see only marginals.

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1. INTRODUCTION

A bipartite observable compares a preparation of Alice with a probe of Bob and returns a number. In the first paper of this series we showed that the observable is stable, in the sense of Shelah, exactly when its idealized responses are continuous; in the second, that it is NIP exactly when they are of the first Baire class, so that the classification of Rosenthal compacta of Todorćević applies. The next dividing line of Shelah is simplicity. Stability and NIP are properties of the closure of a family of responses; simplicity is a property of a different kind.

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It asks whether conditions on an unknown probe can be satisfied together, and it fails when one can build a tree of conditions whose branches are consistent while the siblings exclude one another. The question of this paper is what happens to that property when Alice is allowed to mix her preparations.

The two classical examples of simple unstable structures are the Rado graph and vector spaces over finite fields with a generic bilinear form. Shelah's own motivating example was the theory T_{ind} , the theory of the random graph; its two-sorted version, the random bipartite graph, has exactly the shape of a bipartite observable, with Alice's labels and Bob's labels as the two sorts. All of these structures are Fraïssé limits, and they have physical counterparts. The Rado graph is the almost sure isomorphism type of a random network of couplings on countably many sites. The countable symplectic space over the two-element field $\mathbb{F}_2$ is the Pauli group on countably many qubits: two Pauli strings either commute or anticommute, and the commutation relation is a nondegenerate alternating form. This form is the one evaluated in every stabilizer code, since the syndrome bit of an error with respect to a check is the value of the form at the pair.

In Sections 2–4 we prove, with the independence relation of Kim and Pillay, that both structures are simple and unstable, and in Section 5 we translate the Fraïssé limit, forking and the independence theorem into the language of quantum error correction, and back. In Section 6 we pass to observables. Alice's mixed preparations are probability measures on her labels, and her response is affine in the mixture. A single mixed preparation can therefore carry unboundedly many labels, and it is natural to expect that mixtures add tree properties that no first-order formula of the classical structure has. Section 7 shows that this expectation is right for every observable with the independence property: a uniform mixture over a finite set of labels, compared with a uniform mixture over half of it, pins a probe down to that half, and two different halves exclude each other. Simplicity is a property of a theory, and the tree so obtained lives in elementary extensions, among idealized preparations. Sections 8 and 9 ask whether actual preparations already carry it, and find that the answer separates the two examples.

Theorem 1.1 (Main results).

- (A) *The Rado graph and the countable symplectic space over $\mathbb{F}_2$ are simple and unstable (Theorems 3.1 and 4.2).*
- (B) *Mixing destroys simplicity. For every diagonal observable whose pure responses have the independence property, the continuous theory of its mixed preparations, probes and response has the tree property of the second kind, witnessed by the difference of two responses. Hence a simple observable has no independence property (Theorem 7.1).*
- (C) *For the commutation observable of the Pauli group, the tree property of the second kind is witnessed by actual preparations: uniform mixtures over cosets of finite subgroups (Theorem 8.1).*
- (D) *For an observable whose pure responses are freely independent, and in particular for the Rado graph and the random bipartite graph, no sequence of instances of a quantifier-free formula in one probe variable, with actual mixtures as parameters, is uniformly k -inconsistent for any k ; the tree of (B) requires idealized preparations (Theorems 9.1 and 9.3, and Corollary 9.2).*

The mechanism behind (C) and (D) is the following: the pure probes of the Pauli observable are the linear functionals on the Pauli group, which form a compact group, and the pure responses of Alice are its characters. Characters multiply, so averages of responses over cosets recover the indicators of cylinders, and a single mixture can say “the checks before the j -th are silent and the j -th fires”. The pure probes of the Rado graph form the whole Cantor cube, and the pure responses are its coordinates; averages of coordinates see only the marginals of a probe, and a gliding hump argument shows that conditions on marginals given by actual mixtures never divide. Mixing destroys simplicity in both cases, but only linear relations among the labels let actual preparations witness it.

2. SIMPLE THEORIES AND THE THEOREM OF KIM AND PILLAY

The goal of this section is to fix the vocabulary. We work in a monster model $\mathbb{M}$ of a complete first-order theory T ; sets of parameters are small.

Definition 2.1. Let $\varphi(x, y)$ be a formula and let an integer $k \geq 2$ be given.

- (1) A sequence $(b_j)_{j \in \mathbb{N}}$ is *k -inconsistent* for φ if for all $j_1 < \dots < j_k$ there is no x with $\varphi(x, b_{j_1}) \wedge \dots \wedge \varphi(x, b_{j_k})$.
- (2) The formula φ has the *tree property* if, for some $k \geq 2$, there is a tree $(b_s)_{s \in \mathbb{N}^{<\mathbb{N}}}$ such that for every $\eta \in \mathbb{N}^{\mathbb{N}}$ the set $\{\varphi(x, b_{\eta|n}) : n \in \mathbb{N}\}$ is consistent and for every s the sequence $(b_{s \smallfrown j})_{j \in \mathbb{N}}$ is k -inconsistent for φ .
- (3) The formula φ has the *tree property of the second kind* (TP₂) if, for some $k \geq 2$, there is an array $(b_{ij})_{i,j \in \mathbb{N}}$ such that every row $(b_{ij})_{j \in \mathbb{N}}$ is k -inconsistent for φ and for every $f: \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$ the set $\{\varphi(x, b_{if(i)}) : i \in \mathbb{N}\}$ is consistent.
- (4) The theory T is *simple* if no formula has the tree property.

Every stable theory is simple, and the tree property of the second kind implies the tree property; by a theorem of Shelah, a theory is simple exactly when it has neither TP₂ nor the tree property of the first kind. A simple theory is stable exactly when it is NIP, so a simple unstable theory has the independence property. To prove simplicity we shall not build trees: we shall exhibit the independence relation directly.

Fact 2.2 (Kim and Pillay). Let $\perp$ be a ternary relation on small subsets of $\mathbb{M}$, written $A \perp_C B$, and assume that it satisfies the following:

- (i) invariance under automorphisms of $\mathbb{M}$;
- (ii) symmetry: the relation $A \perp_C B$ holds if and only if $B \perp_C A$ holds;
- (iii) monotonicity and transitivity: the relation $A \perp_C BD$ holds if and only if both $A \perp_C B$ and $A \perp_{CB} D$ hold;
- (iv) finite character: the relation $A \perp_C B$ holds if and only if $a \perp_C b$ holds for all finite tuples a from A and b from B ;
- (v) local character: for every finite tuple a and every set B there is $B_0 \subseteq B$ with $|B_0| \leq |T|$ and $a \perp_{B_0} B$;
- (vi) extension: for every tuple a and all sets $C \subseteq B$ there is a' with $\text{tp}(a'/C) = \text{tp}(a/C)$ and $a' \perp_C B$;
- (vii) independence theorem over models: if M is a model, $B \perp_M D$, $a_1 \perp_M B$, $a_2 \perp_M D$ and $\text{tp}(a_1/M) = \text{tp}(a_2/M)$, then there is a with $\text{tp}(a/MB) = \text{tp}(a_1/MB)$, $\text{tp}(a/MD) = \text{tp}(a_2/MD)$ and $a \perp_M BD$.

Then T is simple and the relation $\perp$ coincides with nonforking independence (see [22, Theorem 4.2]).

3. THE RADO GRAPH

The goal of this section is the first half of Theorem 1.1(A). The class of finite graphs has the amalgamation property, since two graphs that share an induced subgraph can be glued along it without new edges. Its Fraïssé limit is the Rado graph (V, E) , and a countable graph is this limit if and only if it has the *extension property*: for all finite disjoint $P, Q \subseteq V$ there are infinitely many $v \in V \setminus (P \cup Q)$ adjacent to every vertex of P and to no vertex of Q . The theory of (V, E) is ω -categorical and eliminates quantifiers, so the type of a tuple over a set D is determined by its equalities with elements of D and its edges to D and within itself. By saturation, the monster model has the extension property for small disjoint sets P, Q .

The relation $E(x, y)$ has the independence property: for distinct $a_1, \dots, a_n$ and every $I \subseteq \{1, \dots, n\}$, the extension property gives a vertex adjacent to a_i exactly when $i \in I$. Hence the theory of the Rado graph is unstable.

Theorem 3.1. *The theory of the Rado graph is simple, and $A \perp_C B$ holds if and only if $A \cap B \subseteq C$.*

Proof. We verify the hypotheses of Fact 2.2 for the relation $A \cap B \subseteq C$. Invariance, symmetry and finite character are immediate. For monotonicity and transitivity, the conditions $A \cap B \subseteq C$ and $A \cap D \subseteq C \cup B$ together say that every element of $A \cap (B \cup D)$ lies in C . For local character, consider a finite tuple a and a set B , the set $B_0 = B \cap a$ is finite and contains $a \cap B$.

For extension, let a and $C \subseteq B$ be given, and write $a = (c, a_0)$ with c the entries of a in C . The type of a_0 over C prescribes the equalities and edges of a_0 within itself and to C ; by the extension property of $\mathbb{M}$, applied one entry at a time with the excluded set enlarged by $B \setminus C$, there is a'_0 disjoint from B with the same type over C . Then $a' = (c, a'_0)$ satisfies $a' \cap B \subseteq C$.

For the independence theorem, let M, B, D, a_1 and a_2 be as in Fact 2.2(vii). Since $\text{tp}(a_1/M) = \text{tp}(a_2/M)$, the two tuples have the same entries in M and the same remaining equalities; write $a_\ell = (m, a'_\ell)$ with a'_ℓ disjoint from M . Since $a_1 \perp_M B$ and $a_2 \perp_M D$, the tuple a'_1 is disjoint from B and a'_2 is disjoint from D . We look for a tuple x disjoint from $M \cup B \cup D$ with the following edges: within itself and to M as a'_1 (equivalently as a'_2); to $B \setminus M$ as a'_1 ; to $D \setminus M$ as a'_2 . These prescriptions do not conflict, because $B \cap D \subseteq M$. The extension property of $\mathbb{M}$ provides such an x , and by quantifier elimination the tuple $a = (m, x)$ is as required. $\square$

4. SYMPLECTIC SPACES OVER THE TWO-ELEMENT FIELD AND THE PAULI GROUP

The goal of this section is the second half of Theorem 1.1(A), together with the dictionary that makes it a statement about qubits.

4.1. Pauli strings. A qubit is the Hilbert space $\mathbb{C}^2$, and its Pauli matrices are

$$X = \begin{pmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{pmatrix}, \quad Z = \begin{pmatrix} 1 & 0 \\ 0 & -1 \end{pmatrix}, \quad XZ = -ZX.$$

A Pauli string on n qubits is a tensor product $X^{x_1} Z^{z_1} \otimes \dots \otimes X^{x_n} Z^{z_n}$ with $x_k, z_k \in \mathbb{F}_2$; up to a phase, it is labeled by the vector $(x, z) \in \mathbb{F}_2^{2n}$, and products of strings correspond to sums of labels. Two strings either commute or anticommute, and

$$P_{(x,z)} P_{(x',z')} = (-1)^{\omega((x,z),(x',z'))} P_{(x',z')} P_{(x,z)}, \quad \omega((x,z),(x',z')) = x \cdot z' + z \cdot x'.$$

The form ω is bilinear, alternating and nondegenerate on $\mathbb{F}_2^{2n}$. A *stabilizer group* is a subspace on which ω vanishes, and the *syndrome* of an error b with respect to checks $e_1, \dots, e_m$ is the vector $(\omega(e_1, b), \dots, \omega(e_m, b))$: measuring the checks reveals which of them anticommute with the error. On countably many qubits we let $V = \bigoplus_{k \in \mathbb{N}} \mathbb{F}_2^2$, with the same form; its elements are the Pauli strings that act nontrivially on finitely many qubits.

4.2. The Fraïssé limit. In the language with $+$, 0 and a binary relation for $\omega(x, y) = 1$, substructures are $\mathbb{F}_2$ -subspaces with the restricted form. Finite alternating spaces amalgamate: if $A \subseteq B$ and $A \subseteq C$, write $B = A \oplus B'$ and $C = A \oplus C'$, and declare $\omega(B', C') = 0$ on $A \oplus B' \oplus C'$. Every finite alternating space embeds in a nondegenerate one, and by the theorem of Witt every isometry between subspaces of a finite nondegenerate alternating space extends to the whole space. A back-and-forth argument along symplectic bases therefore shows that (V, ω) is the Fraïssé limit of the finite alternating spaces over $\mathbb{F}_2$. Its theory is ω -categorical and eliminates quantifiers, so the type of a tuple a over a set D is determined by the linear relations of a over $\text{span}(D)$ and the values of ω on $\text{span}(aD)$. The algebraic closure of a set is its span.

Lemma 4.1. *If $a_1, \dots, a_n \in V$ are linearly independent and $v_1, \dots, v_n \in \mathbb{F}_2$, then there is $b \in V$ with $\omega(a_i, b) = v_i$ for $i = 1, \dots, n$.*

Proof. The vectors a_i lie in a finite-dimensional subspace W spanned by part of the symplectic basis, and the form is nondegenerate on W . Hence the functionals $\omega(a_i, \cdot)$ restricted to W are linearly independent, and the linear map $b \mapsto (\omega(a_i, b))_{i \leq n}$ from W to $\mathbb{F}_2^n$ is onto. $\square$

By Lemma 4.1, the formula $\omega(x, y) = 1$ has the independence property: any set of syndromes is realized by some error. Hence the theory of (V, ω) is unstable. By saturation, the monster model $\mathbb{M}$ realizes, over each small subspace S , every finite-dimensional alternating space $S \oplus \text{span}(x_1, \dots, x_n)$; in particular, for every linear functional f on S there is b with $\omega(\cdot, b) = f$ on S .

Theorem 4.2. *The theory of (V, ω) is simple, and $A \perp_C B$ holds if and only if $\text{span}(AC) \cap \text{span}(BC) = \text{span}(C)$.*

Proof. We verify the hypotheses of Fact 2.2. Invariance and symmetry are immediate. For finite character, a vector of $\text{span}(AC) \cap \text{span}(BC)$ outside $\text{span}(C)$ is a combination of finitely many elements of A , B and C .

For monotonicity and transitivity, put $X = \text{span}(AC)$, $Y = \text{span}(BC)$, $Z = \text{span}(BCD)$ and $W = \text{span}(C)$, so that $Y \subseteq Z$ and $\text{span}(ABC) = X + Y$. We must show that $X \cap Z = W$ if and only if $X \cap Y = W$ and $(X + Y) \cap Z = Y$. If $X \cap Z = W$, then $X \cap Y \subseteq W$; and if $x + y \in Z$ with $x \in X$ and $y \in Y$, then $x \in X \cap Z = W \subseteq Y$, so that $x + y \in Y$. Conversely, if $v \in X \cap Z$, then $v \in (X + Y) \cap Z = Y$, so that $v \in X \cap Y = W$.

For local character, let a be a finite tuple and B a set. The space $\text{span}(a) \cap \text{span}(B)$ is finite, so it is contained in $\text{span}(B_0)$ for some finite $B_0 \subseteq B$. If $x + w \in \text{span}(B)$ with $x \in \text{span}(a)$ and $w \in \text{span}(B_0)$, then $x \in \text{span}(a) \cap \text{span}(B) \subseteq \text{span}(B_0)$; hence $\text{span}(aB_0) \cap \text{span}(B) = \text{span}(B_0)$, which is $a \perp_{B_0} B$.

For extension, let a and $C \subseteq B$ be given. Replacing a by a maximal subtuple linearly independent over $\text{span}(C)$, we may assume that a is linearly independent over $\text{span}(C)$; the remaining entries are then determined. Choose a complement B' of $\text{span}(C)$ in $\text{span}(BC)$. The alternating space $\text{span}(BC) \oplus \text{span}(x)$, in which x has the values of ω prescribed by $\text{tp}(a/C)$ on $\text{span}(xC)$ and $\omega(x, B') = 0$, is realized over $\text{span}(BC)$ by a tuple a' , which has the type of a over C and is linearly independent over $\text{span}(BC)$.

For the independence theorem, let M , B , D , a_1 and a_2 be as in Fact 2.2(vii). As before, we may assume that a_1 is linearly independent over M , and then so is a_2 . Since $a_1 \perp_M B$, the tuple a_1 is linearly independent over $\text{span}(MB)$, and likewise a_2 over $\text{span}(MD)$. For each entry, the functional $\omega(a_{1,k}, \cdot)$ on $\text{span}(MB)$ and the functional $\omega(a_{2,k}, \cdot)$ on $\text{span}(MD)$ agree on M , because $\text{tp}(a_1/M) = \text{tp}(a_2/M)$. Since $B \perp_M D$, we have $\text{span}(MB) \cap \text{span}(MD) = M$, so the two functionals glue to a single linear functional on $\text{span}(MB) + \text{span}(MD) = \text{span}(MBD)$. Realize, over $\text{span}(MBD)$, a tuple a linearly independent over $\text{span}(MBD)$ with these functionals and with the values of ω on a given by $\text{tp}(a_1/M)$. By quantifier elimination, the types satisfy $\text{tp}(a/MB) = \text{tp}(a_1/MB)$ and $\text{tp}(a/MD) = \text{tp}(a_2/MD)$, and the relation $a \perp_M BD$ holds by construction. $\square$

The same proofs apply over any finite field. For symmetric or arbitrary bilinear forms, the identification of the limit through symplectic bases and the theorem of Witt is no longer available in characteristic two, but the generic limit exists by free amalgamation, and the verification of Fact 2.2 goes through with the values $\omega(x, x)$ prescribed by the type. Over an infinite field carried as a second sort, the analogous theory of Granger is not simple (see the historical remarks).

5. A DICTIONARY: THE PAULI GROUP FOR LOGICIANS AND PHYSICISTS

The goal of this section is to show that three notions of model theory, Fraïssé limits, forking and the independence theorem, are already at work in quantum error correction, under other names. Each subsection states a theorem, proves it, and reads it twice: once for the physicist, who knows stabilizer codes but not model theory, and once for the logician, who knows model theory but not stabilizer codes. A single example runs through the section: the five-qubit code of Laflamme, Miquel, Paz and Zurek [10] and of Bennett, DiVincenzo, Smolin and Wootters [8], the smallest code that corrects an arbitrary error on one qubit. Table 1 summarizes the dictionary.

5.1. Stabilizer codes in brief. We recall what the logician needs. A *stabilizer group* on n qubits is a group $\mathcal{G}$ of Pauli strings that commute with each other and does not contain $-I$. Its common eigenspace for the eigenvalue 1 is the *code space*; if $\mathcal{G}$ has $n - k$ independent generators, the code space has dimension 2^k and encodes k qubits. In the labels of Section 4, the group $\mathcal{G}$ corresponds, up to signs, to an isotropic subspace $S \subseteq \mathbb{F}_2^{2n}$, that is, a subspace on which ω vanishes. An error is a Pauli string e ; measuring the generators $g_1, \dots, g_{n-k}$ of $\mathcal{G}$ on the corrupted state returns the *syndrome* $(\omega(g_1, e), \dots, \omega(g_{n-k}, e))$, and the decoder guesses the error from the syndrome. An error with zero syndrome is undetectable. It is harmless if it lies in $\mathcal{G}$, since it then acts trivially on the code space, and it is a *logical error* otherwise. The *distance* of the code is the least number of qubits on which a logical error acts. A *Clifford unitary* is a unitary operator U that maps Pauli strings to Pauli strings under conjugation, up to a phase; on labels, conjugation by U is a linear map of $\mathbb{F}_2^{2n}$ that preserves ω . For a label v we write P_v for the Pauli string with label v that is Hermitian, so that $P_v^2 = I$; for instance, the label of XZ gives Y .

Example 5.1. The five-qubit code has the stabilizer generators

$$g_1 = XZZXI, \quad g_2 = IXZZX, \quad g_3 = XIXZZ, \quad g_4 = ZXIXZ,$$

where $XZZXI$ stands for $X \otimes Z \otimes Z \otimes X \otimes I$, and it encodes one qubit, with logical operators $\bar{X} = XXXXX$ and $\bar{Z} = ZZZZZ$. Each of the fifteen errors that act as X , Y or Z on a single qubit has its own nonzero syndrome, and there are exactly fifteen nonzero syndromes

Model theory	Quantum error correction	
the structure (V, ω)	Pauli strings on countably many qubits, with commutation	Section 4
the age of (V, ω)	the commutation matrices of finite sets of Pauli strings	Proposition 5.2
ultrahomogeneity, automorphisms	Clifford circuits; encoding circuits of stabilizer codes	Theorem 5.3
algebraic closure of a set	the group generated by a set of Pauli strings	Section 4
the type of an error over a set	its syndrome, and whether it lies in the group generated	Theorem 5.5
a forking extension	the error becomes a product of known operators	Theorem 5.5
nonforking with zero syndrome	an undetectable logical error	Corollary 5.6
the independence theorem	syndromes of independent checks can be prescribed independently	Proposition 5.7

TABLE 1. The Pauli group as a structure: the dictionary of Section 5.

of four bits; for instance, the error $XIIII$ has syndrome $(0, 0, 0, 1)$ and $IIZII$ has syndrome $(0, 0, 1, 0)$. The code therefore corrects every error on one qubit, and it has distance 3.

5.2. Fraïssé limits and Clifford circuits. The first theorem says that every finite piece of commutation structure occurs among Pauli strings, and that every symmetry between finite pieces is implemented by a Clifford circuit.

Proposition 5.2. *If M is a symmetric $k \times k$ matrix over $\mathbb{F}_2$ with zero diagonal, then there are Pauli strings $P_1, \dots, P_k$ on at most k qubits such that P_i and P_j anticommute exactly when $M_{ij} = 1$.*

Proof. The matrix M defines an alternating form on $\mathbb{F}_2^k$. Let R be its radical and choose a complement W of R ; the form is nondegenerate on W , which therefore has a symplectic basis of r pairs, where $2r = \dim W$. Send the r pairs to the labels of X and Z on the first r qubits, and a basis of R to the labels of X on $\dim R$ further qubits. This linear map preserves the form, and the images of the standard basis vectors of $\mathbb{F}_2^k$ are the required strings, on $r + \dim R \leq k$ qubits. $\square$

Theorem 5.3. *Let W and W' be subspaces of $\mathbb{F}_2^{2n}$ and let $f: W \rightarrow W'$ be a linear bijection with $\omega(f(v), f(w)) = \omega(v, w)$ for all $v, w \in W$. Then there is a Clifford unitary U on n qubits with $UP_vU^* = \pm P_{f(v)}$ for all $v \in W$. If, moreover, W is isotropic and $v_1, \dots, v_m$ is a basis of W , then U can be chosen with $UP_{v_i}U^* = P_{f(v_i)}$ for all $i \leq m$.*

Proof. By the theorem of Witt, the map f extends to a linear bijection T of $\mathbb{F}_2^{2n}$ that preserves ω . Every such T is induced by conjugation by a Clifford unitary [11, 9]; let U be one. Since UP_vU^* is a Pauli string up to a phase, Hermitian and with square I , the phase is a sign. For the second statement, let $\varepsilon_i \in \{\pm 1\}$ be the sign with $UP_{v_i}U^* = \varepsilon_i P_{f(v_i)}$. The vectors $f(v_i)$ are linearly independent, so by nondegeneracy there is $b \in \mathbb{F}_2^{2n}$ with $(-1)^{\omega(f(v_i), b)} = \varepsilon_i$ for all

i. Conjugation by P_b multiplies $P_{f(v_i)}$ by $(-1)^{\omega(f(v_i), b)}$, so the Clifford unitary $P_b U$ has the required property. $\square$

Corollary 5.4. *Any two stabilizer groups on n qubits with the same number of independent generators are conjugate by a Clifford unitary. In particular, every code that encodes k qubits into n has an encoding circuit made of Clifford gates, which maps the trivial code with generators $Z_1, \dots, Z_{n-k}$ onto it.*

Proof. Let $g_1, \dots, g_m$ and $g'_1, \dots, g'_m$ be independent generators, with labels v_i and v'_i . Both families span isotropic subspaces, so the linear map $v_i \mapsto v'_i$ preserves ω , and Theorem 5.3 gives a Clifford unitary with $U g_i U^* = g'_i$ for all i . The signs of the generators are absorbed in the same way as in the proof of the theorem. $\square$

On countably many qubits, every finite-dimensional subspace of V lies in the labels of the first n qubits for some n . Applying Theorem 5.3 there, and extending by the identity on the remaining qubits, shows that every isometry between finite-dimensional subspaces of (V, ω) extends to an automorphism of (V, ω) implemented by a Clifford circuit on finitely many qubits.

For the physicist. A Fraïssé limit is the unique countable structure that contains every finite configuration of a given kind and in which every symmetry between two finite configurations extends to a symmetry of the whole structure. Proposition 5.2 says that every finite pattern of commutation relations occurs among Pauli strings, and Theorem 5.3 says that every symmetry between finite pieces extends to a global one, implemented by a Clifford circuit. The Pauli group on countably many qubits is therefore the Fraïssé limit of finite commutation patterns, and the Clifford group is its symmetry group. The existence of encoding circuits for stabilizer codes, usually proved by an explicit construction, is the shadow of this homogeneity: by Corollary 5.4, the five-qubit code is the image of the trivial code with generators Z_1, Z_2, Z_3, Z_4 under a Clifford circuit, because the two generating sets have the same commutation pattern, namely none at all.

For the logician. The structure (V, ω) of Section 4 is the Pauli group modulo phases, and the Clifford group acts on it through the symplectic group, which is the automorphism group of each finite piece $(\mathbb{F}_2^{2n}, \omega)$. Ultrahomogeneity, which in Section 4 came from the theorem of Witt and a back-and-forth argument, is implemented by unitary operators on a Hilbert space, the gates of a quantum computer. Stabilizer codes are finite isotropic subspaces, and Corollary 5.4 is ultrahomogeneity for isotropic subspaces, with the signs of the generators as additional data handled by Lemma 4.1.

5.3. Forking and logical errors. In a simple theory, forking is the notion of an extension of a type that adds information. The next theorem computes it for the Pauli group, using the description of nonforking independence in Theorem 4.2.

Theorem 5.5. *Let e be an element of a monster model $\mathbb{M}$ of the theory of (V, ω) , and let $D \subseteq B$ be small subsets of $\mathbb{M}$. Then $\text{tp}(e/B)$ forks over D if and only if $e \in \text{span}(B) \setminus \text{span}(D)$.*

Proof. By Theorem 4.2, the type $\text{tp}(e/B)$ does not fork over D exactly when $\text{span}(eD) \cap \text{span}(B) = \text{span}(D)$. If $e \in \text{span}(D)$, then $\text{span}(eD) = \text{span}(D)$ and the equality holds. If $e \notin \text{span}(D)$, then $\text{span}(eD) = \text{span}(D) \oplus \{0, e\}$, and the equality fails exactly when some vector $e + d$ with $d \in \text{span}(D)$ lies in $\text{span}(B)$, that is, exactly when $e \in \text{span}(B)$. $\square$

The theorem says that commutation data never fork: the type of e over B records the values $\omega(b, e)$ for $b \in B$, and these values can be prescribed freely without forking. Forking

happens only when e becomes a product of the operators in B . In a stabilizer code this distinguishes the two kinds of undetectable error.

Corollary 5.6. *Let $\mathcal{G}$ be a stabilizer group with set of labels S , and let e be a nonzero label with zero syndrome. Then $\text{tp}(e/S)$ forks over $\emptyset$ if and only if e is harmless, that is, $e \in S$. Consequently, the distance of the code is the least number of qubits on which acts an error with zero syndrome whose type over S does not fork over $\emptyset$, among nonzero errors.*

Proof. Apply Theorem 5.5 with $D = \emptyset$ and $B = S$; the span of S is S itself, and $\text{span}(\emptyset) = \{0\}$. The second statement is the definition of distance, since a logical error is a nonzero label with zero syndrome outside S . $\square$

In the five-qubit code, the errors $g_1 g_2 = XYIYX$ (up to a phase) and $\bar{X} = XXXXX$ both have zero syndrome. The first lies in the stabilizer group, so its type over S forks; it is harmless. The second does not, so its type does not fork; it flips the encoded qubit, and it acts on five qubits. The least weight of an error of the second kind is 3, attained for instance by $\bar{X} g_1 = IYYIX$ up to a phase.

For a finite number of qubits, the information carried by a syndrome is measured by counting: if $s_1, \dots, s_m$ are linearly independent labels in $\mathbb{F}_2^{2^n}$, then for each syndrome $\sigma \in \mathbb{F}_2^m$ exactly 2^{2^n-m} labels e satisfy $\omega(s_i, e) = \sigma_i$ for all i , since the map $e \mapsto (\omega(s_i, e))_{i \leq m}$ is linear and onto. A uniformly random error thus has a uniformly random syndrome, which reveals exactly m bits.

For the physicist. Forking is the model-theoretic notion of an observation that pins something down, as opposed to one that merely narrows it. In the Pauli group, Theorem 5.5 shows that syndromes only narrow: on infinitely many qubits, no finite set of checks determines an error, however many bits it reveals. An error is pinned down, in the sense of forking, exactly when it becomes a product of known operators. In a code this is the difference between a harmless undetectable error, which is a product of stabilizers and forks, and a logical error, which does not fork. The distance of the code, its single most important parameter, is the least weight of a nonforking undetectable error.

For the logician. The theory of (V, ω) has a vector space pregeometry for algebraic closure, and Theorem 5.5 is the usual statement that in such a theory forking of a single element is algebraicity. The counting in finite dimension, 2^{2^n-m} solutions to m independent conditions, measures codimension, which forking does not see; this is the finite shadow of the fact that (V, ω) is smoothly approximable in the sense of Cherlin and Hrushovski [12]. The logical errors of a code are the elements of the centralizer of S outside S , that is, the nonzero elements of the centralizer whose types over S do not fork over $\emptyset$. Since the theory is simple and not stable, such a type has many nonforking extensions, and they are told apart by the values of ω on further labels: by which logical error occurred.

5.4. The independence theorem and the gluing of syndromes. The independence theorem of Kim and Pillay says that two types that do not fork can be amalgamated. In the Pauli group it becomes a statement about syndromes.

Proposition 5.7. *Let C , B and D be subsets of $\mathbb{F}_2^{2^n}$ with $\text{span}(BC) \cap \text{span}(DC) = \text{span}(C)$, and let f_1 and f_2 be linear functionals on $\text{span}(BC)$ and on $\text{span}(DC)$ that agree on $\text{span}(C)$. Then there is a label $e \in \mathbb{F}_2^{2^n}$ with $\omega(s, e) = f_1(s)$ for $s \in \text{span}(BC)$ and $\omega(s, e) = f_2(s)$ for $s \in \text{span}(DC)$.*

Proof. Since f_1 and f_2 agree on the intersection of their domains, there is a linear functional f on $\text{span}(BC) + \text{span}(DC)$ extending both. Extend f to $\mathbb{F}_2^{2n}$. Because ω is nondegenerate, every linear functional on $\mathbb{F}_2^{2n}$ has the form $\omega(\cdot, e)$ for a unique e . $\square$

In the five-qubit code, take $C = \emptyset$, $B = \{g_1, g_2\}$ and $D = \{g_3, g_4\}$. The spans of B and D meet only in 0, so any two bits of syndrome on g_1, g_2 and any two on g_3, g_4 are realized together by one error; by Example 5.1, even by an error on a single qubit, for instance $YIII$ for the syndrome $(1, 0 | 1, 1)$. If D is replaced by $\{g_1 g_2\}$, the hypothesis fails, and so does the conclusion: the syndrome of $g_1 g_2$ is the sum of those of g_1 and g_2 .

For the physicist. The independence theorem is the rule that lets partial information be combined: two sets of checks that are independent given their common part impose no constraint on each other, so their syndromes can be prescribed separately and are realized by a single error. In linear algebra this is easy, and Proposition 5.7 is a few lines. The point of the theorem of Kim and Pillay is that this gluing rule, together with the other properties of Fact 2.2, characterizes the simple theories. Section 7 shows where it breaks: once preparations are mixed, the conditions “the probe is concentrated on this half of a block” and “on that half” are each consistent, and the halves meet in a quarter of the block, yet the two conditions cannot hold together.

For the logician. Proposition 5.7 is the independence theorem of Theorem 4.2 in finite dimension, over an arbitrary closed set rather than over a model: the gluing of functionals that agree on $\text{span}(MB) \cap \text{span}(MD)$ is the whole argument. Its physical content is that the syndrome map of a set of checks is onto exactly when the checks are linearly independent, which is how codes are designed. The more interesting direction for the logician is the converse in Section 7: mixtures of preparations produce conditions that divide, and the independence theorem fails there.

6. OBSERVABLES, MIXTURES AND DIVIDING

The goal of this section is to transport Definition 2.1 to the responses of an observable, in the form used in the second paper, and to compute the probe spaces of the two observables of this paper.

6.1. Diagonal observables. Let A and B be countable sets and let $\varphi: A \times B \rightarrow \{0, 1\}$ be a function. The *diagonal observable* of φ is the operator

$$C_\varphi = \sum_{a \in A, b \in B} \varphi(a, b) |a\rangle\langle a| \otimes |b\rangle\langle b| \quad \text{on } \ell^2(A) \otimes \ell^2(B).$$

In plain words, Alice’s register holds a label a , Bob’s register holds a label b , and the observable reads $\varphi(a, b)$. A density operator ρ of Alice enters only through its diagonal, which is a probability measure μ on A : the preparation draws a at random with law μ . The slice of C_φ by ρ is the diagonal operator of multiplication by

$$b \mapsto \sum_{a \in A} \mu(a) \varphi(a, b).$$

The probe algebra of the second paper is the unital C^* -algebra generated by these slices; it is the commutative C^* -algebra of bounded functions on B generated by the constants and the indicators $b \mapsto \varphi(a, b)$, $a \in A$.

Lemma 6.1. *Let $K_\varphi \subseteq \{0, 1\}^A$ be the closure of the set of functions $\varphi(\cdot, b)$, $b \in B$. The probe algebra of C_φ is isomorphic to $C(K_\varphi)$, the probe space is the space $\mathcal{P}(K_\varphi)$ of Radon probability measures on K_φ , and the response of the mixture μ is the affine continuous function*

$$r_\mu(\nu) = \int_{K_\varphi} \sum_{a \in A} \mu(a) \lambda(a) d\nu(\lambda) \quad (\nu \in \mathcal{P}(K_\varphi)).$$

Proof. The unital C^* -algebra generated by commuting projections is the algebra of continuous functions on the Stone space of the Boolean algebra they generate. The Boolean algebra generated by the sets $\{b : \varphi(a, b) = 1\}$ has as Stone space the closure of the image of B under $b \mapsto \varphi(\cdot, b)$, which is K_φ . States of $C(K_\varphi)$ are Radon probability measures by the Riesz representation theorem, and the formula for r_μ is the evaluation of the state ν at the slice. $\square$

The pure probes are the point masses δ_λ , $\lambda \in K_\varphi$; a pure probe is an *idealized label* of Bob, recording which of Alice's labels it answers with 1. Actual labels $b \in B$ are dense among them, and for a label b we write $r_\mu(b)$ for the response at the pure probe of $\varphi(\cdot, b)$.

6.2. Dividing for families of functions. The responses of the second paper form a family of real functions on the probe space, and the independence property was defined for such a family. We do the same for the tree properties. The conditions are inequalities with a gap, which is what makes them survive in elementary extensions of the structure formed by the preparations, the probes and the response.

Definition 6.2. Let Y be a set and $\mathcal{R}$ a family of real functions on Y .

- (1) A sequence $(r_j)_{j \in \mathbb{N}}$ in $\mathcal{R}$ is *uniformly k -inconsistent* if there are reals $\alpha < \beta$ such that each r_j takes a value $\geq \beta$ somewhere on Y , and for all $j_1 < \dots < j_k$ no $y \in Y$ satisfies $r_{j_\ell}(y) > \alpha$ for $\ell = 1, \dots, k$.
- (2) The family $\mathcal{R}$ has the *tree property of the second kind* (TP_2) if there are $k \geq 2$, reals $\alpha < \beta$ and an array $(r_{ij})_{i,j \in \mathbb{N}}$ in $\mathcal{R}$ such that every row is uniformly k -inconsistent with the constants α and β , and for every $f: \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$ and every n there is $y \in Y$ with $r_{if(i)}(y) \geq \beta$ for all $i < n$.

The tree property of Definition 2.1, its variant of the first kind, and TP_2 all require infinite sequences of instances that are k -inconsistent: the children of a node, or a row. When these notions are transported to a family of functions as in Definition 6.2, those sequences become uniformly k -inconsistent. A family without uniformly k -inconsistent sequences has therefore no tree property of any kind. For the response of an observable, Definition 6.2 is the tree property of the second kind of the atomic formula, in the real-valued logic of the second paper; the gap between α and β is what the definitions of dividing in continuous logic require.

6.3. The two observables. The *commutation observable* is the diagonal observable of ω on $V \times V$: Alice and Bob each hold a Pauli label, and the observable reports whether the two Pauli strings anticommute. For a mixture μ , the response at a label b is the probability that a Pauli string drawn with law μ anticommutes with b . The *Rado observable* is the diagonal observable of E on $V \times V$, where now (V, E) is the Rado graph: Alice and Bob each hold a site of a random coupling network, and the observable reports whether the two sites are coupled. Both observables have the independence property already on pure preparations, by Lemma 4.1 and the extension property.

Lemma 6.3.

- (a) For the commutation observable, the space K_ω is the group V^* of all linear functionals $V \rightarrow \mathbb{F}_2$.
- (b) For the Rado observable, the space K_E is the whole Cantor cube $\{0, 1\}^V$.

Proof. (a) Each $\omega(\cdot, b)$ is linear, and the linear functionals form a closed subset of $\{0, 1\}^V$. Conversely, a basic neighborhood of a linear functional λ prescribes the values of λ on finitely many vectors, which may be taken linearly independent, and Lemma 4.1 gives b with $\omega(\cdot, b)$ in the neighborhood. (b) A basic open subset of $\{0, 1\}^V$ prescribes adjacency to the vertices of a finite set P and nonadjacency to those of a finite set Q , and the extension property gives a vertex outside $P \cup Q$ with that pattern. $\square$

Thus the pure probes of the commutation observable are the idealized Pauli errors, the elements of the compact group V^* , and Alice's pure responses are its characters up to an affine change: $\lambda(a) = (1 - \chi_a(\lambda))/2$ with $\chi_a(\lambda) = (-1)^{\lambda(a)}$. The pure probes of the Rado observable are arbitrary sets of neighbors, that is, arbitrary subsets of V .

6.4. The structure of an observable. To speak of the theory of an observable, we regard it as a structure of the real-valued logic of the second paper. For a diagonal observable C_φ , let $\mathcal{S}_\varphi$ be the two-sorted structure whose sorts are Alice's mixtures, the probability measures on A with the metric of total variation, and Bob's probes, the space $\mathcal{P}(K_\varphi)$ with a compatible metric for its compact metrizable weak* topology, and whose only predicate is the response $R(\mu, \nu) = r_\mu(\nu)$, with values in $[0, 1]$. The predicate is 1-Lipschitz in μ and continuous on the compact sort of probes, hence uniformly continuous. We say that C_φ is *simple* if the continuous theory of $\mathcal{S}_\varphi$ is simple in the sense of Ben Yaacov [3]. In an elementary extension of $\mathcal{S}_\varphi$, the new elements of the sort of preparations are idealized preparations of Alice, and the tree properties of a formula are witnessed there. When a tree property is witnessed in $\mathcal{S}_\varphi$ itself, as in Definition 6.2, we say that actual preparations witness it.

7. MIXTURES DESTROY SIMPLICITY

The goal of this section is Theorem 1.1(B). The idea is a comparison of two averages. Let S be a finite set of labels and T a half of S . The difference between the response to the uniform mixture on T and the response to the uniform mixture on $S \setminus T$ reaches its maximum 1 exactly when the probe answers 1 on T and 0 on $S \setminus T$. Two halves that meet in a quarter of S cannot both be nearly maximized, and the independence property supplies a pure probe with any prescribed answers on finitely many disjoint blocks.

Theorem 7.1. *Let C_φ be a diagonal observable, and assume that there are distinct labels $a_0, a_1, \dots$ in A such that for all finite disjoint $E, F \subseteq \mathbb{N}$ there is a label $b \in B$ with $\varphi(a_n, b) = 1$ for $n \in E$ and $\varphi(a_n, b) = 0$ for $n \in F$. Then the affine formula*

$$\psi(x; y_1, y_2) = R(y_1, x) - R(y_2, x),$$

with x of the sort of probes and y_1, y_2 of the sort of preparations, has the tree property of the second kind in the continuous theory of $\mathcal{S}_\varphi$, with $k = 2$, $\alpha = 1/2$ and $\beta = 1$. In particular, a simple diagonal observable has no independence property.

Proof. We first build finite arrays in $\mathcal{S}_\varphi$ itself and then pass to an elementary extension by compactness.

Let $N \geq 1$ be given, and choose t with $2^t > N$. Partition $2^t N$ of the labels a_n into N blocks $S_0, \dots, S_{N-1}$ of size 2^t , and identify each block with $\mathbb{F}_2^t$. Choose distinct nonzero

vectors $w_0, \dots, w_{N-1}$ in $\mathbb{F}_2^t$, and for $i, j < N$ let $T_{ij} \subseteq S_i$ be the set of $v \in \mathbb{F}_2^t$ with $w_j \cdot v = 1$. Each T_{ij} has 2^{t-1} elements, and for $j \neq j'$ the set $T_{ij} \cap T_{ij'}$ has 2^{t-2} elements, since w_j and $w_{j'}$ are linearly independent. Let μ_{ij}^+ and μ_{ij}^- be the uniform probability measures on T_{ij} and on $S_i \setminus T_{ij}$.

For a probe ν , write $q_a = \nu\{\lambda : \lambda(a) = 1\} \in [0, 1]$, so that $R(\mu, \nu) = \sum_a \mu(a)q_a$ by Lemma 6.1. With $m = 2^t$, we have

$$\psi(\nu; \mu_{ij}^+, \mu_{ij}^-) = \frac{2}{m} \left(\sum_{a \in T_{ij}} q_a - \sum_{a \in S_i \setminus T_{ij}} q_a \right) \leq 1.$$

For $j \neq j'$ in the same row, adding the two values gives

$$\frac{4}{m} \left(\sum_{a \in T_{ij} \cap T_{ij'}} q_a - \sum_{a \in S_i \setminus (T_{ij} \cup T_{ij'})} q_a \right) \leq \frac{4}{m} \cdot \frac{m}{4} = 1,$$

so the two values are never both greater than $1/2$. For every $f: N \rightarrow N$, the hypothesis applied to the finite disjoint sets $\bigcup_i T_{if(i)}$ and $\bigcup_i (S_i \setminus T_{if(i)})$ gives a label b , and at the pure probe of $\varphi(\cdot, b)$ every value $\psi(\cdot; \mu_{if(i)}^+, \mu_{if(i)}^-)$ with $i < N$ equals 1.

Thus, for every N , the structure $\mathcal{S}_\varphi$ satisfies the following conditions on $2N^2$ preparations $y_{ij}^\pm$: for every $f: N \rightarrow N$, the value of $\sup_x \min_{i < N} \psi(x; y_{if(i)}^+, y_{if(i)}^-)$ is 1; and for all i and $j \neq j'$, the value of $\sup_x \min(\psi(x; y_{ij}^+, y_{ij}^-), \psi(x; y_{ij'}^+, y_{ij'}^-))$ is at most $1/2$. These are finitely many closed conditions for each N , and the conditions for N are inherited by subarrays. By compactness, an $\aleph_1$ -saturated elementary extension of $\mathcal{S}_\varphi$ contains an array $(y_{ij}^\pm)_{i,j \in \mathbb{N}}$ satisfying them for all N ; by saturation, the suprema along paths are attained. This is the tree property of the second kind, which is incompatible with simplicity in continuous logic [3]. $\square$

The theorem is the counterpart, for independent preparations, of the theorem of Ben Yaacov [4] that the randomization of a theory with the independence property has the tree property of the second kind. It also mirrors the theorem of the second paper that mixtures make hereditarily separable compacta of idealized responses metrizable: in both cases, a class of the classical theory disappears because states can be mixed. The remaining question is whether actual preparations already witness the tree, or whether it needs idealized ones. The next two sections show that both happen.

8. ACTUAL MIXTURES OF PAULI PREPARATIONS DIVIDE

The goal of this section is Theorem 1.1(C). The idea is to let a single mixture ask a question about many checks at once. Let a block of independent checks $e_0, e_1, \dots$ be given, and let Alice draw a Pauli string uniformly from the coset $e_j + \text{span}(e_0, \dots, e_{j-1})$. If the checks before e_j are silent on Bob's error and e_j fires, every string in the coset anticommutes with the error; if one of the earlier checks fires, exactly half of them do. Two different values of j cannot both describe the first check to fire, and blocks of disjoint checks are independent.

Theorem 8.1. *Let $(e_{im})_{i,m \in \mathbb{N}}$ be linearly independent vectors of V , put $U_{ij} = \text{span}(e_{im} : m < j)$, and let μ_{ij} be the uniform probability measure on the coset $e_{ij} + U_{ij}$. For the commutation observable, the following hold:*

- (a) *for every $f : \mathbb{N} \rightarrow \mathbb{N}$ and every n , there is a label $b \in V$ with $r_{\mu_{if(i)}}(b) = 1$ for all $i < n$, and there is a pure probe $\lambda \in V^*$ with $r_{\mu_{if(i)}}(\lambda) = 1$ for all i ;*
- (b) *for every i , every $j \neq j'$ and every probe $\nu \in \mathcal{P}(V^*)$, we have $\min(r_{\mu_{ij}}(\nu), r_{\mu_{ij'}}(\nu)) \leq 2/3$, and the bound $2/3$ is attained.*

Consequently, the responses of Alice have the tree property of the second kind, with $k = 2$, $\alpha = 2/3$ and $\beta = 1$.

Proof. We first compute the response of μ_{ij} at a pure probe $\lambda \in V^*$. If λ does not vanish on U_{ij} , then λ takes the value 1 on exactly half of the coset $e_{ij} + U_{ij}$, since a nonzero functional on a finite $\mathbb{F}_2$ -space is balanced, and translation by e_{ij} either preserves or exchanges its level sets. If λ vanishes on U_{ij} , then λ is constant on the coset, with value $\lambda(e_{ij})$. Hence

$$(1) \quad r_{\mu_{ij}}(\lambda) = \begin{cases} 1 & \text{if } \lambda(e_{im}) = 0 \text{ for } m < j \text{ and } \lambda(e_{ij}) = 1, \\ 1/2 & \text{if } \lambda(e_{im}) = 1 \text{ for some } m < j, \\ 0 & \text{otherwise.} \end{cases}$$

In words, the response is 1 exactly when e_{ij} is the first check of block i to fire.

(a) Let f and n be given. The conditions $\lambda(e_{im}) = 0$ for $m < f(i)$ and $\lambda(e_{if(i)}) = 1$, for $i < n$, concern finitely many linearly independent vectors, so Lemma 4.1 gives a label b with $\omega(\cdot, b)$ satisfying them, and (1) gives $r_{\mu_{if(i)}}(b) = 1$ for all $i < n$. The conditions for all i together define a nonempty closed subset of V^* , since the vectors e_{im} are linearly independent; any λ in it works.

(b) Let $j < j'$. By (1), the pair $(r_{\mu_{ij}}(\lambda), r_{\mu_{ij'}}(\lambda))$ at a pure probe takes one of the values

$$(1, \tfrac{1}{2}), \quad (\tfrac{1}{2}, \tfrac{1}{2}), \quad (0, \tfrac{1}{2}), \quad (0, 1), \quad (0, 0).$$

Indeed, if the first check of block i to fire among $e_{i0}, \dots, e_{ij'}$ has index m , the pair is $(\frac{1}{2}, \frac{1}{2})$ for $m < j$, $(1, \frac{1}{2})$ for $m = j$, $(0, \frac{1}{2})$ for $j < m < j'$ and $(0, 1)$ for $m = j'$; if none fires, the pair is $(0, 0)$. Responses are affine in the probe, so at a mixed probe ν the pair lies in the convex hull of these five points. On that hull the minimum of the two coordinates is at most $2/3$, with equality only at $\frac{2}{3}(1, \frac{1}{2}) + \frac{1}{3}(0, 1)$, which is the pair of the probe $\frac{2}{3}\delta_\lambda + \frac{1}{3}\delta_{\lambda'}$ with e_{ij} firing first under λ and $e_{ij'}$ under λ' .

Statements (a) and (b) are the two clauses of Definition 6.2 for the array $(r_{\mu_{ij}})$, with $k = 2$, $\alpha = 2/3$ and $\beta = 1$. $\square$

The theorem uses only linear independence. If the checks e_{im} commute pairwise, for instance when they are the operators Z on distinct qubits, each U_{ij} is a stabilizer group and μ_{ij} draws uniformly from a coset of it.

Remark 8.2. The mechanism is Fourier inversion on the compact group V^* . With μ_{ij}^0 the uniform measure on the subgroup U_{ij} , the indicator of the cylinder “the check e_{ij} fires first in block i ” is

$$\mathbf{1}_{A_{ij}} = r_{\mu_{ij}} - r_{\mu_{ij}^0}$$

on pure probes, which is the familiar formula for the projector onto a syndrome sector as an average over the stabilizer group. Since the characters of V^* separate points and are closed under multiplication, the linear span of Alice’s responses and the constants is dense in $C(V^*)$

by the Stone–Weierstrass theorem; it is in fact an algebra, since $2r_a r_b = r_a + r_b - r_{a+b}$ for the pure responses r_a . Differences of two coset averages realize the indicators of cylinders, functions of supremum norm one. On the pure labels, by contrast, a formula of (V, ω) speaks about a bounded number of checks, and Theorem 4.2 shows that no formula has the tree property.

Remark 8.3. Theorem 7.1 already shows that the continuous theory of $\mathcal{S}_\omega$ is not simple, although the classical theory of (V, ω) is. Theorem 8.1 says more: the tree is present in $\mathcal{S}_\omega$ itself, with actual preparations as parameters and the atomic formula as the formula, so no idealization is needed to see it.

9. ACTUAL MIXTURES OF FREE PREPARATIONS NEVER DIVIDE

The goal of this section is Theorem 1.1(D). By Theorem 7.1, the Rado observable is not simple; we show here that its tree cannot be seen with actual preparations. We say that a diagonal observable has *freely independent* pure responses when $K_\varphi = \{0, 1\}^A$, that is, when every pattern of answers to all of Alice’s labels is an idealized label of Bob. By Lemma 6.3, the Rado observable has this property and the commutation observable does not.

For such an observable, the response of a mixture depends on a probe only through its marginals $p_a(\nu) = \nu\{\lambda : \lambda(a) = 1\}$, and every vector of marginals in $[0, 1]^A$ is attained by a product measure. A bounded affine combination of responses is therefore a function

$$h_{c, \gamma}(\nu) = \gamma + \sum_{a \in A} c(a) p_a(\nu), \quad c \in \ell^1(A),$$

and its supremum over the probe space is $\gamma + \sum_a c(a)^+$, attained at the pure probe $\lambda = \mathbf{1}_{\{c > 0\}}$. Two such functions can only conflict through the labels on which both put weight. The idea of the proof is that an infinite sequence of them must, after a gliding hump, put its weight on disjoint blocks of labels, apart from a common part, so that a single pure probe nearly maximizes all of them.

Theorem 9.1. *Let C_φ be a diagonal observable with freely independent pure responses, and let $L > 0$ be given. Let $\mathcal{R}_L$ be the family of functions $\gamma + \sum_{i < n} c_i r_{\mu_i}$ on $\mathcal{P}(\{0, 1\}^A)$, where $n \in \mathbb{N}$, the μ_i are mixtures of Alice and $|\gamma| + \sum_i |c_i| \leq L$. Then $\mathcal{R}_L$ contains no uniformly k -inconsistent sequence, for any k . In particular, no tree property is witnessed in $\mathcal{R}_L$.*

Proof. Let (h_j) be a sequence in $\mathcal{R}_L$ and let $\alpha < \beta$ be such that each h_j takes a value $\geq \beta$. We show that for every k there are $j_1 < \dots < j_k$ and a pure probe λ with $h_{j_\ell}(\delta_\lambda) > \alpha$ for all ℓ .

Write $h_j = h_{c_j, \gamma_j}$ with $c_j = \sum_i c_{j,i} \mu_{j,i}$, so that $\|c_j\|_1 \leq L$. Since A is countable, a diagonal argument gives a subsequence, still denoted (c_j) , that converges pointwise on A to some c ; by Fatou’s lemma, the limit satisfies $\|c\|_1 \leq L$. Put $\eta = (\beta - \alpha)/5$ and choose a finite set $F \subseteq A$ with $\|c \upharpoonright (A \setminus F)\|_1 < \eta$. Put $G_0 = F$, and choose inductively indices $j_1 < \dots < j_k$ and finite sets $G_0 \subseteq G_1 \subseteq \dots \subseteq G_k$ such that

$$\|(c_{j_\ell} - c) \upharpoonright G_{\ell-1}\|_1 < \eta \quad \text{and} \quad \|c_{j_\ell} \upharpoonright (A \setminus G_\ell)\|_1 < \eta;$$

the first condition holds for all large indices by pointwise convergence, and the second for a large enough finite set. Define $\lambda \in \{0, 1\}^A$ by $\lambda(a) = 1$ exactly when $a \in F$ and $c(a) > 0$, or $a \in G_\ell \setminus G_{\ell-1}$ and $c_{j_\ell}(a) > 0$ for some $\ell \leq k$.

Let $\ell \leq k$ be given. The deficit of λ for h_{j_ℓ} is

$$\sup h_{j_\ell} - h_{j_\ell}(\delta_\lambda) = \sum_{\lambda(a)=0} c_{j_\ell}(a)^+ + \sum_{\lambda(a)=1} c_{j_\ell}(a)^-,$$

and we bound its contribution on four disjoint pieces of A . On $G_\ell \setminus G_{\ell-1}$ the sign pattern of λ is that of c_{j_ℓ} , and the contribution is 0. On F it is that of c , and a label where the signs of c_{j_ℓ} and c disagree contributes at most $|c_{j_\ell}(a) - c(a)|$; the total is less than η . On $G_{\ell-1} \setminus F$ the contribution is at most $\|c_{j_\ell} \upharpoonright (G_{\ell-1} \setminus F)\|_1 \leq \|(c_{j_\ell} - c) \upharpoonright G_{\ell-1}\|_1 + \|c \upharpoonright (A \setminus F)\|_1 < 2\eta$. On $A \setminus G_\ell$ it is less than η . Hence $h_{j_\ell}(\delta_\lambda) > \sup h_{j_\ell} - 4\eta \geq \beta - 4\eta > \alpha$. $\square$

Corollary 9.2. *For the Rado observable, no tree property of a bounded affine combination of responses is witnessed by actual preparations, although the continuous theory of $\mathcal{S}_E$ has the tree property of the second kind.*

Proof. By Lemma 6.3(b), the Rado observable has freely independent pure responses, and Theorem 9.1 applies. The second statement is Theorem 7.1. $\square$

The finite arrays in the proof of Theorem 7.1 are made of actual preparations, and their rows have any prescribed finite length; by Theorem 9.1, the rows cannot be made infinite. In an elementary extension, a row becomes infinite by passing to idealized preparations: averages over a block $\mathbb{F}_2^t$ with t infinite, of the kind obtained as weak* limits of uniform measures on growing finite blocks. The same holds for the random bipartite graph, whose observable has freely independent pure responses by its extension property.

9.1. Quantifier-free formulas. Theorem 9.1 concerns affine combinations of responses. In the real-valued logic of the second paper, a quantifier-free formula in a variable x of probe, built from the response with parameters of preparation, is a continuous function of finitely many responses, since the responses take values in $[0, 1]$ and the connectives are continuous functions. The next theorem is the analogue of Theorem 9.1 for these formulas. The idea is the same gliding hump, with one change: a continuous function of responses is no longer maximized by reading off signs, so instead of building the probe from signs we glue maximizers of the individual instances on disjoint blocks of labels.

Theorem 9.3. *Let C_φ be a diagonal observable with freely independent pure responses, let $n \geq 1$ be an integer, and let $u: [0, 1]^n \rightarrow \mathbb{R}$ be a continuous function. Let $\mathcal{R}_u$ be the family of functions*

$$h(\nu) = u(r_{\mu_1}(\nu), \dots, r_{\mu_n}(\nu)) \quad (\nu \in \mathcal{P}(\{0, 1\}^A)),$$

where $\mu_1, \dots, \mu_n$ range over the mixtures of Alice. Then $\mathcal{R}_u$ contains no uniformly k -inconsistent sequence, for any k . In particular, no tree property of the quantifier-free formula $u(R(y_1, x), \dots, R(y_n, x))$ in the probe variable x is witnessed by actual preparations.

Proof. For $\nu \in \mathcal{P}(\{0, 1\}^A)$ write $p(\nu) \in [0, 1]^A$ for its vector of marginals, as in the proof of Theorem 9.1. Every $h \in \mathcal{R}_u$ factors as $h(\nu) = H(p(\nu))$ with

$$H(q) = u(\langle \mu_1, q \rangle, \dots, \langle \mu_n, q \rangle), \quad \langle \mu, q \rangle = \sum_{a \in A} \mu(a) q_a,$$

and every $q \in [0, 1]^A$ is the vector of marginals of a product measure. It therefore suffices to work on the cube $[0, 1]^A$.

Let (h_j) be a sequence in $\mathcal{R}_u$, with parameters $\mu_{j,1}, \dots, \mu_{j,n}$, and let $\alpha < \beta$ be such that each h_j takes a value $\geq \beta$. We show that for every k there are $j_1 < \dots < j_k$ and $q \in [0, 1]^A$ with $H_{j_\ell}(q) > \alpha$ for all ℓ . Since u is uniformly continuous, there is $\theta > 0$ such that $|u(s) - u(t)| < \beta - \alpha$ whenever $\max_i |s_i - t_i| < \theta$. For each j choose $q^{(j)} \in [0, 1]^A$ with $H_j(q^{(j)}) \geq \beta$. Since A is countable and the cube is compact and metrizable, a diagonal argument gives a subsequence, still indexed by j , along which $\mu_{j,i} \rightarrow \mu_i$ pointwise on A for each $i \leq n$ and $q^{(j)} \rightarrow q^\infty$ in $[0, 1]^A$. By Fatou's lemma, each limit μ_i has total mass at most 1. Put $\eta = \theta/5$ and choose a finite set $F \subseteq A$ with $\mu_i(A \setminus F) < \eta$ for all $i \leq n$.

Put $G_0 = F$, and choose inductively indices $j_1 < \dots < j_k$ and finite sets $G_0 \subseteq G_1 \subseteq \dots \subseteq G_k$ such that, for all $i \leq n$,

$$\sum_{a \in G_{\ell-1}} |\mu_{j_\ell, i}(a) - \mu_i(a)| < \eta, \quad \sum_{a \in F} |q_a^{(j_\ell)} - q_a^\infty| < \eta, \quad \mu_{j_\ell, i}(A \setminus G_\ell) < \eta.$$

The first two conditions hold for all large indices, by convergence on the finite sets $G_{\ell-1}$ and F , and the third for a large enough finite set G_ℓ . Define $q \in [0, 1]^A$ by $q_a = q_a^\infty$ for $a \in F$, $q_a = q_a^{(j_\ell)}$ for $a \in G_\ell \setminus G_{\ell-1}$ and $\ell \leq k$, and $q_a = 0$ for $a \notin G_k$.

Let $\ell \leq k$ and $i \leq n$ be given. We compare $\langle \mu_{j_\ell, i}, q \rangle$ with $\langle \mu_{j_\ell, i}, q^{(j_\ell)} \rangle$, on the same four pieces of A as in the proof of Theorem 9.1; on each piece the two vectors differ by at most 1 in each coordinate. On $G_\ell \setminus G_{\ell-1}$ they agree. On F the difference is at most $\sum_{a \in F} |q_a^\infty - q_a^{(j_\ell)}| < \eta$, since $\mu_{j_\ell, i}(a) \leq 1$. On $G_{\ell-1} \setminus F$ it is at most $\mu_{j_\ell, i}(G_{\ell-1} \setminus F) \leq \sum_{a \in G_{\ell-1}} |\mu_{j_\ell, i}(a) - \mu_i(a)| + \mu_i(A \setminus F) < 2\eta$. On $A \setminus G_\ell$ it is at most $\mu_{j_\ell, i}(A \setminus G_\ell) < \eta$. Hence $|\langle \mu_{j_\ell, i}, q \rangle - \langle \mu_{j_\ell, i}, q^{(j_\ell)} \rangle| < 4\eta < \theta$ for every $i \leq n$, and the choice of θ gives $H_{j_\ell}(q) > H_{j_\ell}(q^{(j_\ell)}) - (\beta - \alpha) \geq \alpha$. $\square$

The proof of Theorem 9.1 gives slightly more for affine combinations: there the common witness can be taken pure. For a general connective u the witness is the product probe whose vector of marginals is q , and a mixed witness is needed in general: for $n = 1$, $\mu = \delta_a$ and $u(t) = 1 - |2t - 1|$, the instance vanishes at every pure probe and equals 1 at the probes with $q_a = 1/2$.

The contrast with Theorem 8.1 lies entirely in the probe space. On $\{0, 1\}^A$, affine combinations of coordinates see only marginals, and conditions on marginals of disjoint blocks are compatible. On the group V^* , the linear relations among the labels make products of coordinates affine combinations of coordinates, and the cylinders of Remark 8.2 appear.

10. AFFINE LOGIC AND CORRELATED PREPARATIONS

The goal of this section is to place the results in affine logic, introduced by Bagheri [2] and developed by Ben Yaacov, Ibarlucía and Tsankov [6], whose connectives are the affine maps and in which a mixture of structures is a direct integral. Formula values in a direct integral are integrals of formula values, which is the rule by which a response is computed on a mixed preparation. In this logic, a structure is *extremal* when it realizes only extreme types; under the hypotheses of [6], every model is an affine elementary substructure of a direct integral of extremal models, and for simplicial theories it is such a direct integral.

Ben Yaacov and Ibarlucía [5] proved that an affine formula stable in almost every member of a measurable field of structures is stable in its direct integral, and that an affine theory is stable exactly when its extremal models are stable. Their definition of stability is the double limit condition used in the first paper of this series. Theorem 7.1 shows that the analogous statement for simplicity fails for mixtures of preparations: the pure structures of the Pauli

group and of the Rado graph are simple, and their mixed observables have the tree property of the second kind. The structure $\mathcal{S}_\varphi$ is not presented here as a direct integral, so the theorem of Ben Yaacov and Ibarlucía and Theorem 7.1 concern different operations.

The direct integral allows the elements in the two variables of a formula to depend on the same random parameter. For observables this means that Alice and Bob share randomness: they prepare a separable state rather than a product state. Ben Yaacov [4] showed that the randomization of a theory with the independence property has TP_2 . Theorem 7.1 reaches the same conclusion with independent preparations, at the price of idealization; Theorems 8.1 and 9.1 show that whether idealization is needed depends on the observable.

11. QUESTIONS

Question 11.1. In classical model theory, a simple theory without the independence property is stable. Is a simple observable stable? By Theorem 7.1, a simple diagonal observable has no independence property, so the question is whether the unstable observables of the second paper, such as the comparison of photon numbers, have a tree property once preparations are mixed.

Question 11.2. Which diagonal observables with the independence property have the tree property of the second kind witnessed by actual preparations? Theorems 8.1 and 9.1 suggest a criterion in terms of the closed linear span of the responses in $C(K_\varphi)$: whether it contains the indicators of an infinite independent sequence of nested cylinders with bounded norm.

Question 11.3. Does Theorem 7.1 hold for every observable whose responses have the independence property, not only for diagonal ones? The proof uses the values 0 and 1 of pure responses; for general observables they are replaced by two levels $a < b$, and the averages must be controlled with a gap.

Question 11.4. Is there a theorem of Kim and Pillay for affine logic, characterizing simple affine theories by an independence relation on extremal types?

Question 11.5. For qudits of prime dimension p , the labels form a symplectic space over the field with p elements and the observable reports a nonzero commutation phase. The proof of Theorem 8.1 adapts. For continuous variables, the commutation phase of a translation by x and a momentum kick by k is the interference fringe e^{ikx} , which is not NIP by the second paper. Where does the unbounded fringe lie with respect to simplicity?

HISTORICAL REMARKS

Simple theories were introduced by Shelah [24] in 1980, together with the tree properties of the first and second kind. Shelah named as his motivation the theory T_{ind} , the theory of the random graph. Kim [21] proved in 1998 that forking is symmetric in simple theories, and Kim and Pillay [22] proved the independence theorem and the characterization of simplicity by an independence relation in 1997. Ben Yaacov [3] extended the theory to compact abstract theories and to continuous logic. The Rado graph was described by Ackermann in 1937 and by Rado [23] in 1964; by a theorem of Erdős and Rényi [16] from 1963, it is the almost sure isomorphism type of the random graph on countably many vertices. Fraïssé [17] introduced his limits in 1954, and the theorem of Witt on isometries of forms is in Artin's *Geometric Algebra* [1]. Infinite-dimensional vector spaces over finite fields with a nondegenerate form are among the smoothly approximable structures of Cherlin and Hrushovski [12]. Granger [19] studied vector spaces with a generic bilinear form over an arbitrary field in his thesis of 1999 and showed that, over an infinite field carried as a second sort, the theory is not simple; Chernikov and Ramsey [13] proved in 2016 that over an algebraically closed field it is NSOP_1 .

The symplectic description of the Pauli group and of stabilizer codes is due to Gottesman [18] and to Calderbank, Rains, Shor and Sloane [11]. Keisler [20] introduced randomizations in 1999; Ben Yaacov and Keisler [7] treated them as metric structures, and Ben Yaacov [4] proved in 2013 that the randomization of a theory with the independence property has TP_2 . Affine logic was introduced by Bagheri [2]; direct integrals and extremal models in affine logic are due to Ben Yaacov, Ibarlucía and Tsankov [6], and stability in affine logic to Ben Yaacov and Ibarlucía [5]. The first two papers of this series are [14, 15].

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